Advanced Data Structures

Binary Search Trees, Python Generators, and Hash Tables

Martin Benning

University College London
ENGF0034 – Design and Professional Skills

27 October 2026



Lecture Overview

Learning Objectives

By the end of this lecture, you will be able to:

1. Contrast linear and hierarchical search trade-offs, and state the formal BST invariant.
2. Implement recursive BST lookup, insertion, and three deletion cases (including Hibbard value swapping).
3. Explain lazy evaluation in Python generators (`yield`, `yield from`) and analyse auxiliary memory.
4. Derive BST height bounds, identify degenerate worst cases, and motivate self-balancing trees.
5. Design hash tables with separate chaining, analyse expected $\mathcal{O}(1)$ lookup under uniform hashing, and explain CPython dict internals.

Lecture Roadmap

The Search Problem & Tree Foundations
Binary Search Trees & Invariants
Tree Traversals & Python Generators
Advanced BST: Deletion & Hibbard Swapping
Complexity & The Balance Trap
Hash Tables and Collision Resolution
Synthesis, Comparison & Outlook

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The Search Problem & Tree Foundations

The Search Problem: Contiguous vs Linked Trade-offs

Revisiting Weeks 2 and 3

Linear structures force a performance compromise:

- **Unsorted Array:** $\mathcal{O}(1)^{A}$ (amortised) append, but $\mathcal{O}(N)$ linear scan.
- **Sorted Array:** $\mathcal{O}(\log N)$ binary search, but $\mathcal{O}(N)$ shifts on insert and delete.
- **Linked List:** $\mathcal{O}(1)$ insert at a known pointer, but $\mathcal{O}(N)$ search without pointer.

The Core Dilemma

Can we achieve $\mathcal{O}(\log N)$ search without paying $\mathcal{O}(N)$ shifts on insertion?

Comparison of Linear Structures

Structure	Search	Insert	Delete
Unsorted Array	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\mathcal{O}(1)^{A}$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$
Sorted Array	$\mathcal{O}(\log N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$
Linked List	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\mathcal{O}(1)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$
Target (BST)	$\mathcal{O}(\log N)$	$\mathcal{O}(\log N)$	$\mathcal{O}(\log N)$

^{A} Amortised time; linked list $\mathcal{O}(1)$ insert assumes a given node pointer.

The Solution Concept

Organise nodes into a **tree hierarchy** that halves the remaining search space at every step.

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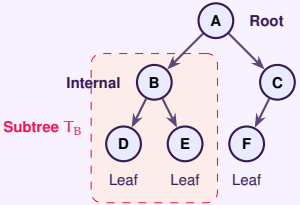
Trees: Definitions and Terminology

Mathematical Definition of a Tree

A **rooted tree** $T = (V, E)$ is a directed acyclic graph with a distinguished **root** vertex $r \in V$ of in-degree 0, where every other vertex $v \in V \setminus \{r\}$ has in-degree 1 and is reachable from r:

- **Root:** The unique vertex with in-degree 0.
- **Parent & Child:** A directed edge (u, v) indicates that u is the parent of v, and v is a child of u.
- **Leaf:** A node with out-degree 0 (no children).
- **Internal Node:** A node with out-degree $\geqslant 1$.
- **Subtree:** The tree induced by node u and all descendants reachable from u.

Tree Anatomy



Common Applications

File directories, HTML DOM trees, and Python abstract syntax trees (ASTs) are all rooted trees.

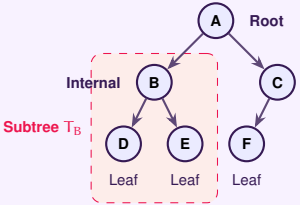
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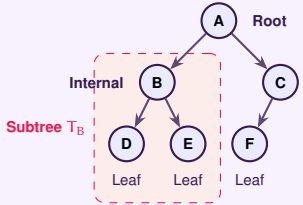
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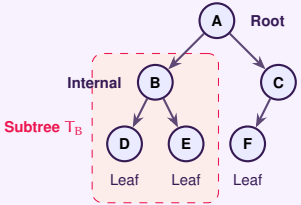
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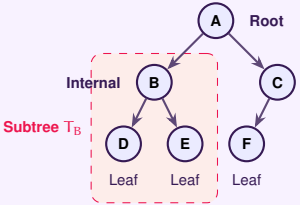
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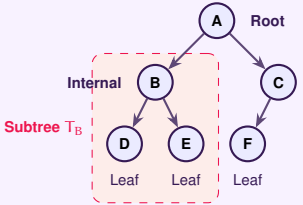
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Tree Metrics: Depth, Height, and Binary Trees

Formal Definitions (Edge-Count)

- **Binary Tree:** At most two distinguished children per node (`left` and `right`).
- **Depth of Node u:** Number of edges on the path from root to u. $\text{depth}(\text{root}) = 0$.
- **Height of Tree** H**:** Maximum depth in T: $H = \max_{u \in T} \text{depth}(u)$ ($H = 0$ for a single node; $H = -1$ for empty).

Height Bounds for $N \geqslant 1$ Nodes

Level d holds at most 2^d nodes, so $N \leqslant 2^{H+1} - 1$:

$$\lfloor \log_2 N \rfloor \leqslant H \leqslant N - 1$$

Height Extremes for $N = 7$ Nodes

Algorithmic Consequence

Tree height H governs search comparisons. Goal: maintain $H = \mathcal{O}(\log N)$.

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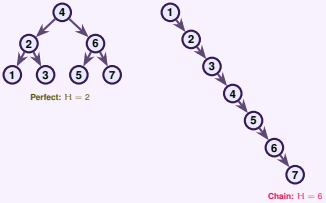
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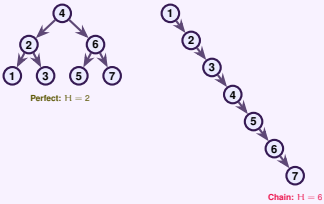
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Binary Search Trees & Invariants

The Binary Search Tree (BST) Invariant

Formal BST Ordering Invariant

Assuming distinct keys drawn from a totally ordered set, a binary tree is a **Binary Search Tree** if and only if for **every** node X in the tree:

1. For all $u \in \text{LeftSubtree}(X)$: $u.\text{key} < X.\text{key}$
2. For all $v \in \text{RightSubtree}(X)$: $v.\text{key} > X.\text{key}$

Global Property

The condition applies to **all ancestors and descendants**, not merely immediate children.

Subtree Key Ranges

Consequence for Search

Comparing a search key against $X.\text{key}$ eliminates an entire subtree in $\mathcal{O}(1)$ time.

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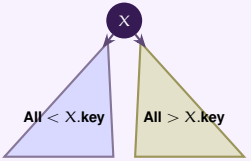
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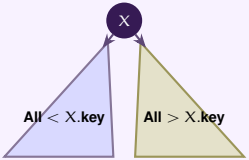
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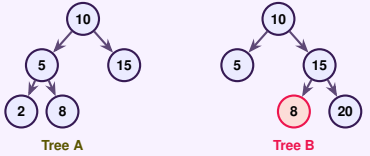


Consequence for Search

Comparing a search key against X.key eliminates an entire subtree in $\mathcal{O}(1)$ time.

Checkpoint 1: Spot the Invariant Violation

Inspect These Two Candidate Trees



The Diagnostic Question

In Tree B, node 15 satisfies $8 < 15 < 20$ locally. Is Tree B a valid BST? Why would `find(8)` fail?

Analysis

Tree B is invalid:

- Node 8 sits in the **right subtree of 10**.
- The invariant requires every node in 10's right subtree to be > 10. Since $8 < 10$, this violates the global invariant.

Search Failure Mode

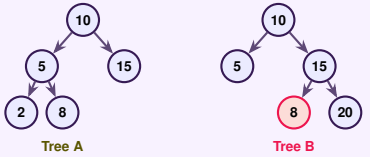
When searching for 8:

1. At root 10: $8 < 10 \implies$ search branches **left**.
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Valid key range for 15's left child is $(10, 15)$.

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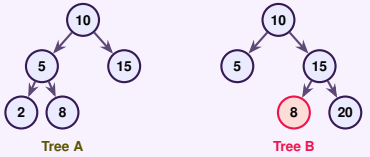
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Search Failure Mode

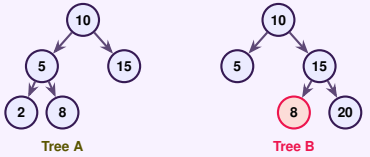
When searching for 8:

1. At root 10: $8 < 10 \implies$ search branches **left**.
2. Node 8 sits on the right, so search never finds it.

Valid key range for 15's left child is $(10, 15)$.

Checkpoint 1: Spot the Invariant Violation

Inspect These Two Candidate Trees



The Diagnostic Question

In Tree B, node 15 satisfies $8 < 15 < 20$ locally. Is Tree B a valid BST? Why would `find(8)` fail?

Analysis

Tree B is invalid:

- Node 8 sits in the **right subtree of 10**.
- The invariant requires every node in 10's right subtree to be > 10. Since $8 < 10$, this violates the global invariant.

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BST Representation: Tree and Node Classes

```python
class TreeNode:
  def __init__(self, key, value):
    self.key = key
    self.value = value
    self.left = None
    self.right = None

class BinaryTree:
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    self.root = None

  def lookup(self, key):
    if self.root is None:
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    node = self.root.find(key)
    return node.value if node else None
```

Tree and Node Separation

Why use both `BinaryTree` and `TreeNode`?

- **Empty Trees:** When the tree contains no elements, `self.root = None` represents size 0 directly.
- **Root Reassignment:** When deleting the root node, `self.root` is reassigned directly.

Encapsulation

Callers invoke `tree.lookup(key)` on the wrapper without managing recursive node references directly.

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BST Lookup (`find`): Halving the Search Space

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1  class TreeNode:
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9      else:
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```

Trace: `find(12)`

Step-by-Step

1. At 10: $12 > 10 \implies$ branch right.
2. At 15: $12 < 15 \implies$ branch left.
3. At 12: $12 == 12 \implies$ match returned.

3 comparisons instead of 5 for a linear list.

Complexity Derivation

Each step descends one level. At most $H + 1$ nodes are visited:

$$T(N) = \mathcal{O}(H)$$

Balanced tree: $\mathcal{O}(\log N)$. Degenerate chain: $\mathcal{O}(N)$.

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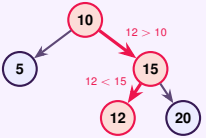
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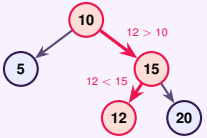
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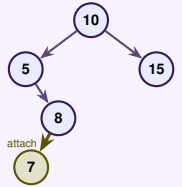
BST Insertion (`insert`): Growing at the Leaves

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class TreeNode:
  def insert(self, key, value):
    if key < self.key:
      if self.left is None:
        self.left = TreeNode(key, value)
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        self.left.insert(key, value)
    else:
      if self.right is None:
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Insertion Mechanics

`insert` follows the path of a failed `find`. At `None`, it attaches a new leaf in $\mathcal{O}(1)$ pointer updates. Total time: $\mathcal{O}(H)$.

Trace: `insert(7, "G")`



Key Observation

Unlike dynamic arrays, inserting into a BST does not require shifting existing nodes in memory.

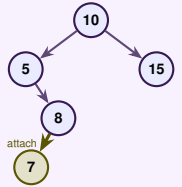
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Handling Duplicate Keys in `tree.py`

The Implementation in `tree.py`

In `tree.py`, line 44 writes:

```
1 if key < self.key:
2   ...
3 else:
4   # Routes key >= self.key to right:
5   if self.right is None:
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```

If `key == self.key`, it creates a duplicate node in the right subtree.

Effect of Duplicate Keys

Because `find` stops at the first matching key:

- Re-inserting an existing key shadows the new value at a leaf below.
- `lookup` will never reach the updated value.

The Map ADT Correction

In a standard key-value map, matching keys update the value in-place:

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1 elif key == self.key:
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Preserves uniqueness and updates in $\mathcal{O}(H)$ time.

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Tree Traversals & Python Generators

Depth-First Tree Traversals

Three Classic Depth-First Orders

- **Pre-Order ($\mathbf{N} \to \mathbf{L} \to \mathbf{R}$):** Visit node before subtrees. Used for cloning or serialising tree structure.
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In-Order Traversal Theorem

An in-order traversal of a BST with distinct keys visits keys in **strictly increasing sorted order**.

Sorted Order via Projection

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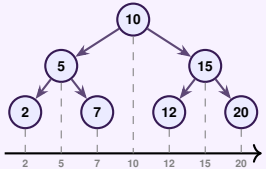
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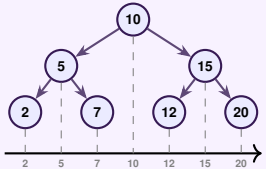
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Limitations of Returning a List

Implementation: Returning a List

```
1 def walk_list(self):
2   result = []
3   if self.left is not None:
4     result.extend(self.left.walk_list())
5   result.append((self.key, self.value))
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1. **Memory Overhead ($\Theta(N)$):** Allocates a list holding all N elements simultaneously.
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Yield individual items on demand without allocating an intermediate container.

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Python Generators and `yield` (`yield-example-1.py`)

```python
def return_example():
  return [1, 2, 3]  # Function terminates

def yield_example():
  yield 1  # Suspends execution
  yield 2  # Resumes here on next()
  yield 3

gen = yield_example()
print(next(gen))  # 1
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```

`return` vs `yield`

- **`return`:** Deallocates the activation frame and returns control permanently.
- **`yield`:** Suspends the generator frame on the heap, preserves local variables, and produces a value.

The Iterator Protocol

Calling a generator function returns a **generator iterator**. A `for` loop invokes `next()` repeatedly until `StopIteration` is raised.

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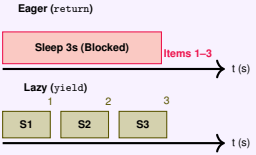
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Execution Timeline Comparison



Interleaved Execution

Time-to-first-item: 1 s with `yield` vs 3 s with `return`. Execution is single-threaded and interleaved (cooperative suspension and resumption).

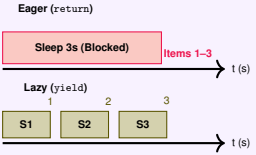
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Recursive Generator Delegation: `yield from`

Manual Iteration Delegation

```
1 # Iterating over a sub-generator:
2 for item in subgenerator():
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Direct Delegation: PEP 380

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1 # Direct delegation:
2 yield from subgenerator()
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How `yield from` Operates

`yield from <iterable>` delegates iteration directly to a sub-generator:

- Values produced by the sub-generator are passed directly to the outer caller.
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Enables writing recursive tree traversals directly in clean Python.



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In-Order BST Generator (`TreeNode.walk`)

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class TreeNode:
  def walk(self):
    if self.left is not None:
      yield from self.left.walk()
    yield (self.key, self.value)
    if self.right is not None:
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# Consuming the generator:
for key, val in tree.root.walk():
  print(key, val)
```

Time and Space Complexity

- **Total Visits:** $\Theta(N)$ node visits in total.
- **First Item Latency:** $\mathcal{O}(H)$ to walk down to the minimum key.
- **Auxiliary Memory:** $\Theta(H)$ suspended generator frames on the heap along the active path ($\Theta(\log N)$ balanced, $\Theta(N)$ degenerate).

Heap Memory Savings

In a balanced BST of 10^6 nodes, `walk()` maintains ≈ 20 suspended frames, compared to an eager list holding 10^6 tuples.

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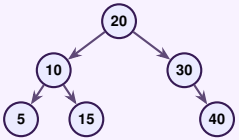
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Checkpoint 2: Generator Execution & Traversal Orders

Consider This 6-Node BST



Question 1: Lazy Invocation

When running `g = tree.root.walk()`, how many nodes have been visited before calling `next(g)`?

Question 2: Traversal Outputs

Predict the exact output sequence for each order:

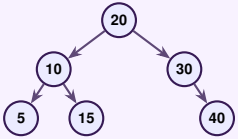
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Answer to Question 1

Zero nodes. Calling a generator function returns an iterator without executing the function body until `next()` is called.

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Advanced BST: Deletion & Hibbard Swapping

The Challenge of BST Deletion

Why Deletion is Hard

- `insert` always adds a new node as a **leaf** at the bottom of the tree.
- `delete` may remove a node from the middle of the tree (or the root itself).
- Remaining nodes must be rewired to preserve the global BST invariant strictly.

Classification by Number of Children

To delete a target node D:

- **Case 1 (0 Children — Leaf):** Discard D.
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Classification by Number of Children

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The Recursive Pointer-Update Idiom

```
1  class TreeNode:
2    def delete(self, key):
3      if self.key == key:
4        # Handle Cases 1, 2, or 3
5        ...
6      elif key < self.key:
7        if self.left:
8          self.left = self.left.delete(key)
9      else:
10       if self.right:
11         self.right = self.right.delete(key)
12     return self
13
14 class BinaryTree:
15   def delete(self, key):
16     if self.root:
17       self.root = self.root.delete(key)
```

Subtree Root Assignment

Notice the recursive update:

```
self.left = self.left.delete(key)
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- `delete()` returns the node that should now occupy that position.
- When a child unlinks itself, the parent updates its child pointer directly.
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Deletion Case 1 (Leaf) and Case 2 (Single Child)

```python
# Inside TreeNode.delete (self.key == key):

# Case 1: Leaf (0 children)
if self.left is None and self.right is None:
  return None

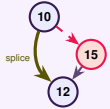
# Case 2a: Only right child exists
elif self.left is None:
  return self.right

# Case 2b: Only left child exists
elif self.right is None:
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```

Case 1: Delete Leaf 2



Case 2: Delete Node 15 (Single Child 12)



Invariant Preservation in Case 2

All nodes in D's single child subtree already satisfy the invariant relative to D's parent.

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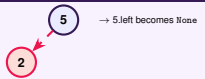
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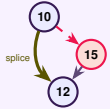
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The Replacement Requirement

Target node D has subtrees $T_L \neq \emptyset$ and $T_R \neq \emptyset$. A valid replacement R^* must satisfy:

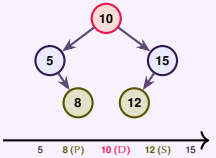
$$\forall x \in T_L \backslash \{R^*\},\ \forall y \in T_R \backslash \{R^*\}: \quad x.\text{key} < R^*.\text{key} < y.\text{key}$$

The Unique Candidates

Only two keys in the tree satisfy this property:

1. **In-Order Predecessor:** $P = \max(T_L)$.
2. **In-Order Successor:** $S = \min(T_R)$.

Adjacent Keys in Sorted Order



Immediate Neighbours

8 and 12 are adjacent to 10 in sorted order.
Promoting either preserves the invariant strictly.

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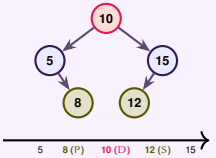
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Finding the Predecessor & Predecessor Child Property

Locating the Predecessor (`maxkey`)

```
1 class TreeNode:
2   def maxkey(self):
3     if self.right is None:
4       return self.key
5     return self.right.maxkey()
```

To find the maximum in a subtree, follow `right` pointers until `node.right is None`.

Lemma: Predecessor Has No Right Child

The in-order predecessor $\mathrm{P} = \max(\mathrm{D.left})$ **cannot have a right child** ($\mathrm{P.right} = \texttt{None}$).

Proof by Contradiction

If P had a right child, that child would have key $> \mathrm{P.key}$, contradicting that P is the maximum key in D's left subtree. □

Termination Guarantee

Because P has at most one child (it can have a **left child**), deleting P from $\mathrm{D.left}$ is **guaranteed** to reduce to Case 1 or Case 2.

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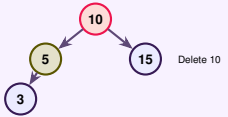
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Strategy A: Hibbard Value Swapping

`tree-fixed-question-response.py`

```python
# Case 3 in tree-fixed-question-response.py:
else:
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  # 3. Recursively delete predecessor from left
  self.left = self.left.delete(maxkey)
  return self # Target node stays in place
```

Step-by-Step on 4-Node Tree



Result After Value Swap

Thomas N. Hibbard (1962)

Avoids physical pointer splicing. We overwrite the payload and delete the predecessor at the bottom.

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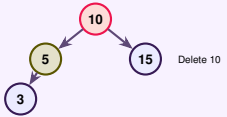
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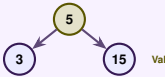
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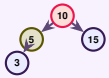
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5        maxnode.right is None) # BUG
6 maxnode.left = self.left
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The Erroneous Assertion

The code asserts that predecessor `maxnode` has no children. But P can have a **left child**.

Checkpoint 3: Crash Trace



What Crashes on `delete(10)`?

1. Predecessor is 5, where `maxnode.left` points to 3.
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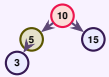
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Single-Pass Predecessor Lookup

Notice that both scripts call:

`maxkey()` then `find(maxkey)`

This traverses the right spine of the left subtree **twice**.

- Writing a helper `maxnode()` that returns the node directly achieves the lookup in a **single pass**.
- Still $\mathcal{O}(\mathrm{H})$, but halves the constant factor.

Hibbard's $\Theta(\sqrt{\mathrm{N}})$ Degradation (Eppinger, 1983)

Always selecting the predecessor from the **left** subtree causes an asymmetry:

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Summary of BST Deletion Cases

Case	Structural Condition	Action Taken	Complexity
Case 1: Leaf	0 children (`left` is `None`, `right` is `None`).	Return `None` to parent. Parent drops pointer.	$\mathcal{O}(\mathrm{H})$
Case 2: 1 Child	Exactly 1 child (`left` or `right` is `None`).	Return non-empty child. Parent bypasses deleted node.	$\mathcal{O}(\mathrm{H})$
Case 3: 2 Children	2 children (`left` and `right` both present).	Copy predecessor (k, v) into node; recursively delete predecessor.	$\mathcal{O}(\mathrm{H})$

Preserving the BST Invariant

All three cases preserve the global BST ordering property. Because Case 3 reduces to Case 1 or 2, at most two downward paths are traversed, bounding total time by $\mathcal{O}(\mathrm{H})$.

Complexity & The Balance Trap

Asymptotic Complexity of BST Operations

Summary of Operations

Operation	Balanced Tree	Degenerate Tree
`lookup(k)`	$\mathcal{O}(\log N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$
`insert(k, v)`	$\mathcal{O}(\log N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$
`delete(k)`	$\mathcal{O}(\log N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$
`minkey()` / `maxkey()`	$\mathcal{O}(\log N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$
`walk()` (all keys)	$\Theta(N)$	$\Theta(N)$

Single-operation bounds are worst-case over arbitrary inputs; root operations take $\Theta(1)$.

Height Governs Traversal Work

Every search or update operation follows a single root-to-leaf path:

$$T(N) = \mathcal{O}(H)$$

The Power of Balanced Trees

For $N = 10^6$ items:

- Linear search ($\mathcal{O}(N)$): Up to 10^6 comparisons.
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Standard BSTs do not guarantee balance. Their shape depends entirely on the insertion order of keys.

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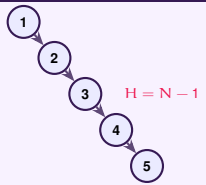
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If keys arrive in random order, expected height is $\mathcal{O}(\log N)$. But what if keys arrive **already sorted**?

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Every key is larger than the previous one, so every insertion branches `right`.

The Linked List Degeneration



Degradation to $\mathcal{O}(N)$

The tree degenerates into a singly linked list. `lookup`, `insert`, and `delete` all degrade to $\Theta(N)$ linear scans.

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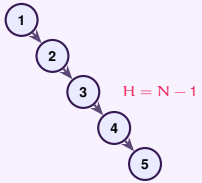
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Checkpoint 4: Inserting Sorted Keys

Real-World Scenario

A web service logs customer transactions into a standard BST, using the order's **auto-incrementing ID** or **timestamp** as the key:

$$k_1 < k_2 < k_3 < \cdots < k_N$$

Diagnostic Questions

1. What is the height H after inserting N transactions?
2. What is the **total cumulative time** to insert all N transactions?

Mathematical Derivation

- Height: $H = N - 1$.
- The i-th insertion traverses $i - 1$ edges:

$$T(N) = \sum_{i=1}^{N} \Theta(i) = \Theta(\frac{N(N-1)}{2}) = \Theta(N^2)$$

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Chronological data is common in engineering. An unbalanced BST turns an expected $\mathcal{O}(N \log N)$ workload into a quadratic $\Theta(N^2)$ runtime.



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Guaranteeing $\mathcal{O}(\log N)$: Self-Balancing Trees

Self-Balancing Invariants

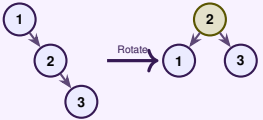
To prevent degeneracy, self-balancing BSTs enforce structural invariants:

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Tree Rotations

When an insertion or deletion unbalances the tree, local $\mathcal{O}(1)$ pointer updates (**rotations**) restore balance without violating the BST invariant.

Left Rotation Mechanics



Guaranteed Worst-Case Bounds

Self-balancing trees guarantee $H = \mathcal{O}(\log N)$ in the worst case for **all** operations.

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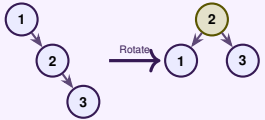
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Beyond Key Comparisons

Comparison Search Lower Bound

In Week 3, we showed that comparison-based sorting requires $\Omega(N \log N)$ comparisons.

- Similarly, any comparison-based search among N items requires a decision tree of height at least:

$$H \geqslant \lceil \log_2(N+1) \rceil - 1 = \Omega(\log N)$$

- No comparison tree can achieve $\mathcal{O}(1)$ lookup in the worst case.

Direct Memory Addressing

Instead of **comparing** keys against each other, compute the memory index directly from the key.

Hash Tables

A hash function converts a key directly into an array index:

$$k \xrightarrow{\text{hash}} \text{index} \implies \mathcal{O}(1) \text{ expected lookup}$$

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In Week 3, we showed that comparison-based sorting requires $\Omega(N \log N)$ comparisons.

- Similarly, any comparison-based search among N items requires a decision tree of height at least:

$$H \geqslant \lceil \log_2(N+1) \rceil - 1 = \boldsymbol{\Omega}(\log \mathbf{N})$$

- No comparison tree can achieve $\mathcal{O}(1)$ lookup in the worst case.

Direct Memory Addressing

Instead of **comparing** keys against each other, compute the memory index directly from the key.

Hash Tables

A hash function converts a key directly into an array index:

$$k \xrightarrow{\text{hash}} \text{index} \implies \mathcal{O}(\mathbf{1}) \text{ expected lookup}$$

Hash Tables and Collision Resolution

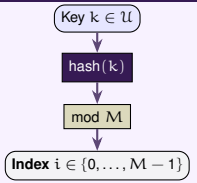
From Direct Addressing to Hash Functions

Direct Addressing

If keys are small integers $k \in \{0, 1, \ldots, M-1\}$, store each item in an array `A[k]`.

- Lookup, insertion, and deletion are strictly $\mathcal{O}(1)$.
- **Limitation:** The universe of possible keys $\mathcal{U}$ (e.g. 64-bit integers, strings) is enormous ($|\mathcal{U}| \geqslant 2^{64}$), making full direct arrays impractical.

The Two-Step Hashing Pipeline



Concrete Example

"Steve" $\xrightarrow{\text{hash}}$ -452187321 $\xrightarrow{\text{mod } 4}$ Index 3.

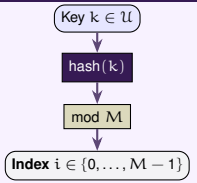
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The Pigeonhole Principle & Hash Collisions

The Inevitability of Collisions

Because the universe of keys $|\mathcal{U}|$ is much larger than table size M:

$$|\mathcal{U}| > M$$

by the **Pigeonhole Principle**, there must exist at least two distinct keys $k_1 \neq k_2$ that hash to the exact same bucket:

$$\text{hash}(k_1) \bmod M = \text{hash}(k_2) \bmod M$$

Collision Resolution Strategies

1. **Separate Chaining:** Each bucket stores a list of colliding elements (`hashtable.py`).
2. **Open Addressing:** All elements live in the table array itself. Collisions probe alternative empty slots using a deterministic probe sequence (CPython `dict`).

Design Rule

A hash table is defined by its hash function and collision resolution policy.

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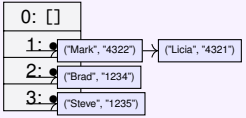
Separate Chaining Architecture (`hashtable.py`)

```
1  class HashTable:
2    def __init__(self, element_list):
3      # Assumes non-empty; else max(1, ...)
4      n = len(element_list) * 2 - 1
5      self.bucket_count = n
6      self.buckets = [[] for _ in range(n)]
7      for key, value in element_list:
8        self.insert(key, value)
9
10   def get_index(self, key):
11     return hash(key) % self.bucket_count
```

Implementation Note

`hashtable.py` stores bucket chains in Python dynamic arrays (`list`), whereas classical separate chaining uses linked lists.

Memory Model ($M = 4$)



Collision in Bucket 1

"Mark" and "Licia" both hash to bucket 1 (hash mod $4 = 1$) and form a chain.

Separate Chaining: Insert and Lookup

```python
class HashTable:
  def insert(self, key, value):
    idx = self.get_index(key)
    # Check for existing key:
    for i, (k, v) in enumerate(self.buckets[idx])
     :
      if k == key:
        self.buckets[idx][i] = (key, value)
        return
    self.buckets[idx].append((key, value))

  def lookup(self, search_key):
    idx = self.get_index(search_key)
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        return value
    return None
```

Storing Both Key and Value

Multiple keys map to the same bucket.

- Bucket 1 contains `("Mark", ...)` and `("Licia", ...)`.
- During `lookup("Licia")`, each entry's key is checked to find the matching value.

Worst-Case Collision Time

If all N keys hash to the same bucket, the chain has length N, degrading search to $\Theta(N)$.

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Load Factor (α) & Expected $\mathcal{O}(1)$ Complexity

Definition of Load Factor (α)

For a table with N stored items and M buckets, the **load factor** is:

$$\alpha = \frac{N}{M}$$

α represents the **average number of items per bucket**.

Simple Uniform Hashing Assumption (SUHA)

Assuming $\mathcal{O}(1)$-time hash evaluation, each key is equally likely to hash into any of the M slots:

$$\Pr(h(k) \bmod M = j) = \frac{1}{M} \quad \forall j \in \{0, 1, \ldots, M-1\}$$

Expected Search Time Under SUHA

In separate chaining under SUHA:

$$T_{\text{expected}} = \Theta(1 + \alpha)$$

- 1: Compute hash and index bucket array ($\mathcal{O}(1)$).
- α: Scan expected chain length ($\frac{N}{M}$).

Bounding the Load Factor

If table resizing ensures $\alpha \leqslant \alpha_{\text{max}} = \mathcal{O}(1)$ (e.g. $\alpha_{\text{max}} = 0.75$), then $\Theta(1 + \alpha) = \boldsymbol{\Theta(1)}$ expected time.

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Dynamic Resizing & Amortised Analysis

When to Resize (Rehashing)

As elements are inserted, $\alpha = N/M$ grows. When $\alpha > \alpha_{max}$:

1. Allocate a new table of size $M' = 2M$.
2. Iterate through all N existing elements.
3. Recompute $\text{hash}(k)$ mod M' for every key and re-insert into new buckets.

Why Rehashing is Required

Because $\text{hash}(k) \bmod M \neq \text{hash}(k) \bmod (2M)$, bucket elements must be redistributed.

Amortised Cost Derivation

A rehash costs $\Theta(N + M') = \Theta(N)$ work.

- Capacity doubles geometrically ($M \to 2M \to 4M$).
- An $\mathcal{O}(N)$ rehash occurs only after $N/2$ insertions:

$$T_{\text{amortised}} = \frac{(N/2) \cdot \mathcal{O}(1) + \Theta(N)}{N/2} = \mathcal{O}(\mathbf{1})$$

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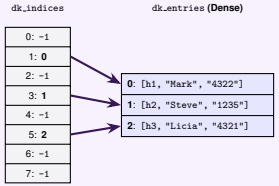
Under the Hood: CPython 3.6+ Compact Dictionaries

Open Addressing in CPython

CPython uses open addressing with a compact two-array layout:

- `dk_indices`: Sparse array of signed integers ($M = 8, 16, \ldots$).
- `dk_entries`: Dense array of $[hash, key, value]$ rows, appended in **insertion order**.
- **Probing on Collision:** If an index slot is occupied, CPython evaluates a perturbed probe sequence to find the next available index.

Two-Array Architecture



Two Major Wins

30%–55% less RAM and **guaranteed insertion-order iteration** at zero extra cost.

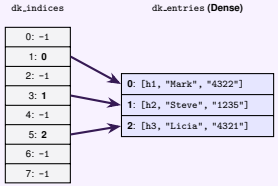
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The Hashability Contract in Python (`dict.py`)

```python
# Valid hashable keys:
d = {10: "int", "UCL": "string"}
t = (1, 2, "tuple_ok")
d[t] = "valid"

# Invalid mutable keys:
lst = [1, 2]
d[lst] = "fails"
# TypeError: unhashable type: 'list'

# Mixed tuple with mutable contents:
d[(1, [2, 3])] = "fails too"
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The Formal Hashability Contract

An object k is hashable if and only if:

1. **Lifetime Invariance:** `hash(k)` remains constant over its lifetime.
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Checkpoint 5: Mutating a Dictionary Key

Thought Experiment

Suppose Python allowed mutable lists as dictionary keys in an $M = 8$ table:

```
k = [10, 20]
d[k] = "secret"
# hash([10, 20]) % 8 == 2 -> Bucket 2

# Mutate key in-place:
k.append(30) # k is now [10, 20, 30]
```

The Diagnostic Question

What happens when evaluating `d[k]` or `d[[10, 20]]`?

Unreachable Entry

Lookup Failure

- `d[k]`: Computes `hash([10,20,30]) % 8 == 6`. Bucket 6 is empty $\Longrightarrow$ `KeyError`.
- `d[[10,20]]`: Probes Bucket 2, but key has changed to `[10,20,30]` $\Longrightarrow$ `KeyError`.

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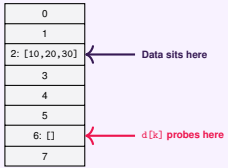
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Synthesis, Comparison & Outlook

Data Structure Complexity Summary (Weeks 2–4)

Data Structure	Search	Insert	Delete	Sorted Iteration	Ordered By
Unsorted Array (`list`)	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\mathcal{O}(1)^{A}$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N \log N)$	Insertion order
Sorted Array (`list`)	$\mathcal{O}(\log N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\Theta(N)$	Key order
Linked Deque (`deque`)	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\mathcal{O}(1)$ at ends	$\mathcal{O}(1)$ at ends	$\mathcal{O}(N \log N)$	Insertion order
Balanced BST (AVL / RB)	$\mathcal{O}(\log \mathbf{N})$	$\mathcal{O}(\log \mathbf{N})$	$\mathcal{O}(\log \mathbf{N})$	$\boldsymbol{\Theta}(\mathbf{N})$	Key order
Degenerate BST (Worst)	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\mathcal{O}(N)$	$\Theta(N)$	Key order
Hash Table (`dict`)	$\mathcal{O}(\mathbf{1})$ exp.	$\mathcal{O}(\mathbf{1})^{\mathbf{A}}$ exp.	$\mathcal{O}(\mathbf{1})$ exp.	$\mathcal{O}(N \log N)$	Insertion order

When to Prefer BSTs

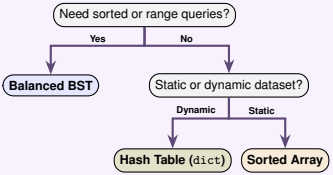
Need range queries ($\texttt{min} \leqslant \texttt{k} \leqslant \texttt{max}$), predecessor/successor, or streaming sorted data without extra sorting passes.

When to Prefer Hash Tables

Need point lookups (`d[key]`) as fast as possible ($\mathcal{O}(1)$ average time), and do not require sorted order.

Choosing a Data Structure

Decision Flowchart

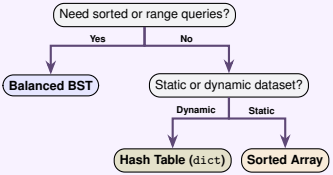


Common Applications

- **Databases (PostgreSQL, SQLite):** Use B+Trees for index range scans; Hash indexes for point queries.
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Key Takeaways & Looking Ahead

Core Lecture Takeaways

1. **BST Invariant:** Strictly partitions search spaces to achieve $\mathcal{O}(\mathrm{H})$ operations.
2. **Hibbard Deletion:** Reduces 2-child deletion to Case 1 or 2 by swapping predecessor data.
3. **Python Generators:** `yield` streams items lazily in $\Theta(\mathrm{H})$ memory, eliminating eager allocation.
4. **Hash Tables:** Achieve $\mathcal{O}(1)$ expected lookup under uniform hashing by bounding load factor $\alpha \leqslant \alpha_{\max}$.

Connecting to Assignment 4

In Assignment 4 (Tetris Autoplayer), you will use Python **generators (`yield`)** to stream candidate rotation and translation moves lazily toward target landing positions.

Preview: Week 5

Next week, we move beyond data storage trees into **Search and Game Trees** (mazes, depth-first search, and the Minimax algorithm).

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